



ENG514



FINALS COMPILATION 2024

★ Chapter Wise Short & Long Questions ★

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CHAPTER 8

Module_23

1. What is speaking ? OR define speaking?

Speaking is one of the four language skills (reading, writing, listening and speaking). It is the means through which learners can communicate with others to achieve certain goals or to express their opinions, intentions, hopes and viewpoints. In addition, people who know a language are referred to as 'speakers' of that language.

Furthermore, in almost any setting, speaking is the most frequently used language skill. As Rivers (1981) argues, speaking is used twice as much as reading and writing in our communication. Speaking has been classified to monologue and dialogue. The former focuses on giving an interrupted oral presentation and the latter on interacting with other speakers. Speaking can also serve one of two main functions: transactional (transfer of information) and interactional (maintenance of social relationships). Developing speaking skills is of vital importance in EFL/ESL programs. Nunan (1999) and Burkart & Sheppard (2004) argue that success in learning a language is measured in terms of the ability to carry out a conversation in the (target) language.

2. Characteristics of speaking ?

- It is both time-bound, and dynamic.

- The complexity and speed of most speech acts make it difficult to engage in complex advance planning.
- Sentence boundaries are at best unclear though intonation and pause divide long discourse into more manageable chunks.
- Participants are usually face-to-face and so can rely on feedback.
- Spoken language makes greater use of shared knowledge than written language.
- Negotiation of meaning is common and often a large part of any conversation. [?]
- Interruptions and overlapping are normal and are generally very common. [?]
- Frequently displays ellipsis. [?]
- Speech makes use of many formulaic expressions

3. Nature of speech?

speech research has often been focused on aspects with a linguistic function, speech conveys necessarily also several kinds of paralinguistic information: expressive (attitudes and emotions) and organic (reflecting the speaker's age, sex, etc.). In addition, there is perspectival information.

4. How speech is regarded in linguistics?

The spoken form is very highly valued in linguistics and applied linguistics where it is regarded as the primary form of a language and the source of innovation and language change. In the realm of second language teaching there is also a high degree of attention paid to the skill of speaking. Indeed, to be a fluent speaker in a language is often the lay person's goal. The source of input in highly influential 'communicative approaches' is largely the spoken form, and there has been a conflation in linguistics of the term 'language' with 'speech' as if the two are entirely interchangeable.

Speech is also quintessentially the form in which the inter-personal functions of language are carried out and the form is subject to the benefits and disadvantages that stem from the way it is produced. Therefore, whereas the tangible, no ephemeral nature of writing lends it to logical and contractual functions in society, for example record keeping and legal tasks, the spoken form, being essentially more dependent on the time and place it is produced, is used for more informal or rhetorically based tasks.

5. Explain the paradigm of Chomsky about fitness of speech in language?

There is the paradigm set out by Noam Chomsky in the 1960s and which in turn has underpinned the greater part of second language acquisition studies, advances in grammatical models, and computer

modelling in which a linguistic element is required. A central aspect to the discussion of speech is the dichotomy between the language faculty ('competence') and the way language is used in actual speech or writing ('performance'). Essentially, this division stemmed from Chomsky's questioning of how children can master language, and master it in such a way that, eventually, any speaker of a language can create and understand an infinite amount of discourse.

6. Transformational grammar movement?

The 1960s with the influence of the work of Noam Chomsky, and the 1970s and 1980s with the growth of 'communicative' approaches, marked two distinct sea changes in the field of language teaching both of which did much to underpin present attitudes to the spoken form. While these two threads are brought into commonality by research in the field of second language acquisition, they have marked differences in the emphasis they placed on speech in their thinking. On the one hand, the Transformational grammar movement internalized and made abstract the language system to such an extent that actual speech became something of an irrelevance. On the other, the tenets of the communicative movement held that language was acquired by meaningful and interesting communication in contexts which mimicked real communicative settings as closely as possible.

Module_ 24

1. Phonological loop?

the phonological loop is the brain saying a word or phrase over and over to itself in order to keep it in working memory or to help it move into long-term memory. A good example of this is the way we say a telephone number over and over to ourselves in order to keep it in memory while we go about dialing the number. If learners do not have a stable pronunciation for a word, it cannot easily enter long-term memory because it cannot be held in the phonological loop.

2. Define the term pronunciation?

Pronunciation includes the articulation of individual sounds and the distinctive features of sounds like voicing and aspiration, voice-setting features (Esling and Wong, 1983), and stress and intonation. Attention to these aspects also requires attention to the blending and omission of sounds, and the effect of the various aspects on intelligibility. Thus, although it can be very useful to provide practice

with individual sounds, it is also important to give attention to other aspects of the sound system.

3. Write the factors about fossilized pronunciation present by Acton?

. First, he placed much of the responsibility for change on the learners, requiring them to make the best use of their time out of class and to find opportunities for making pronunciation changes in their spontaneous speech.

Second, he gave a lot of attention to helping the learners to deal with their attitudes and feelings as these affect their pronunciation. Third, he helped learners with the non-verbal behaviors associated with pronunciation like facial expression and gesture.

Fourth, Acton provided opportunity for the controlled practice of sounds in formal exercises.

Fifth, the learners were encouraged to make use of written pronunciation guides in dictionaries so that their pronunciation could be helped by conscious knowledge of the written form.

4. Jenkin's arguments about "the lingua franca core" ?

Jenkins (2002) argues that intelligibility must be the main criterion and describes what she calls "the Lingua Franca Core" which consists of the phonological and phonetic features that "seem to be crucial as safeguards of mutual intelligibility" in interlanguage talk. These include most of the consonant sounds with some provisos, initial consonant clusters, the distinction between long and short vowels, and the placement of contrastive stress. Jenkins' proposal is a very pragmatic approach to setting pronunciation goals.

Five factors that affect the learning of another sound system?

the age of the learner ☐

the learner's first language ☐

the learner's current stage of proficiency development

the experience and attitudes of the learner ☐

the conditions for teaching and learning

6. Importance of age in language learning?

There is clear evidence that there is a relationship between the age at which a language is learned and the degree of foreign accent (Patkowski, 1990). Usually, if the learner began to speak in the second language before the age of six there will be little or no accent. If the learner began to speak between the ages of seven and 11, the learner is likely to have a slight accent. If the learner began to speak after the age of 12, then there is almost always an accent. There are two important points to note here. First, this relationship between age and accent does not invariably apply to everyone. A few adult

learners do achieve native-like pronunciation. Second, there are several competing explanations of the cause of the relationship.

7. Three reasons that provided by Stevick about the difficulty of learners while copying new sound?

They overlook some feature. If this happens the teacher can help by giving a suitable model which is not too difficult for the level the learners have reached and by making it easy for the learners to find out how near their pronunciation is to the standard set for the course. This addresses the intellectual aspect.

The learners sound bad to themselves when they copy well. People are usually sensitive about their pronunciation because it allows others to guess their social background. Also, if learners' pronunciation of a foreign language is very good, others may think it is because they love the foreign culture and want to be like the foreigners.

The learners become anxious about making the sounds. If the teacher points out to the students that they are not saying something correctly, they may become very tense and nervous and be unable to do it correctly.

8. Hammerly's relationship between languages from most difficulty to least difficulty?

Hammerly (1982), gives the following list of relationships ranked from the most difficult to the least difficult.

- The first language has an allophone not in the second language
- The second language has an allophone that is not in the first language
- The second language has a phoneme that is not in the first language
- The learner has to use a first language phoneme in a new position

9. Write the classroom practice ways in which the sound system is taught?

The written form of a word can affect its pronunciation. Hammerly found that reading aloud was more difficult than imitating for correct pronunciation if the spelling system was misleading. Teachers need to look carefully at the positive and negative effects of spelling on pronunciation when carrying out a pronunciation activity.

- Tongue-twisters like "Round the rugged rocks the ragged rascal ran" or "She sells sea shells on the sea shore" are very difficult for native speakers of English. For learners of English as a second language they are a cruel and unusual punishment.
- Seeing a speaker's mouth movements can have a significant effect on listening (Kellerman, 1990). While tapes may be useful for

developing certain aspects of pronunciation, there should also be opportunities to see and listen.

- Communication activities between learners with different first languages are a good way of encouraging intelligibility. Such tasks make learners focus on intelligibility in order to get their message across, are meaningful, and avoid the embarrassment of teacher correction.

Module-25

1. how an individual is able to particular sounds without any special teaching?

Stevens (1974) suggests that most learners are able to mimic particular sounds without any special teaching. The following procedure moves from mimicry through observation and explanation to rather drastic forcing techniques. Practice with individual problem sounds is important and informed teachers can bring about significant improvement in their learners' pronunciation with such practice (Pennington and Richards, 1986: 217). Usually such practice is based on observation, analysis and selection by the teacher, and may begin with getting learners to hear the differences between sounds and to identify particular sounds before they are guided in pronouncing them.

2. How a teacher teach to hear a wanted sound to learner?

Give advice and help to get the learner to make the sound. Practice the sound by itself or in easy syllables. The first step is for the learners to repeat the sound copying the teacher. If this is not successful, learners can be helped to pronounce sounds if the teacher explains the position of the tongue and lips, and explains what type of sound it is. If the learners still cannot make the sound after trying to copy the teacher and listening to the explanation, there are several techniques that they can use to force their mouths to the correct position. The technique that is used often depends on the type of mistake that the learners make. So the teacher should look carefully at the type of error before deciding what technique to use for forcing.

3. How pair of words help learners to distinguish sounds?

To help learners in distinguishing sounds, the teacher says a pair of words (they can be nonsense words). Sometimes the two words are the same, pa—pa. Sometimes they have one sound different, pa—ba. The learners listen and if they think that the two sounds are the same, they say "the same". If they are different, they say "different". Learners answer individually when the teacher points to them or the

learners can move their right hands when the two sounds are the same and do nothing when they are different. Briere (1967) found that learners preferred to answer “the same” rather than “different” when they were not sure of the correct answer. Thus, in such exercises many of the correct answers should be “different”.

4. How learners identify sounds through using pictures?

In identifying sounds using pictures, the learners see two pictures, for example, one showing a sheep and another showing a ship. When the teacher says “a sheep” the learners must point to the correct picture. This exercise is used with pairs of words that are the same except for one different sound, for example, watching—washing, chair—share, live—leave, etc. In order to give all the class some practice, the teacher should put the two pictures far apart at opposite ends of the blackboard. Then, the teacher can easily see who is pointing to the wrong picture. The pairs of words can be put in sentences: “I see a ship. I see a sheep.” It is often difficult to make matching pairs of sentences like this, but it makes an amusing classroom exercise. Learners can give answers to the sentences to show that they hear them correctly.

5. Write some activities that help learners to identify sounds?

In don't be tricked, some words are written on the blackboard. A learner points to one of them. The teacher pronounces it. Sometimes the teacher pronounces the wrong word. The learners must say if the teacher is right or wrong. So, pa and fa are written on the blackboard. The learner points to pa. If the teacher says fa, the learners say “no”. A multiple-choice sound involves the learners seeing a list of groups of five words. The teacher says one word from each group and the learners draw a circle around the word that the teacher said. The same list can be used several times.

For sound dictation, the teacher says nonsense words or new words and the learners write them. If the learners write them correctly, it shows that the learners can hear the words correctly.

Pronouncing to hear works on the idea that learning to produce new sounds may improve the learners' ability to hear them correctly. The learners may experiment in pronouncing the sounds with the teacher guiding them. They can be shown the position of the tongue and copy the teacher's pronunciation.

6. Slurring and bracketing?

Difficult vowel sounds can often be made by using the exercises that Pike (1947) calls slurring and bracketing. In slurring, the tongue or another part of the mouth is slowly moved from one position to another. This is done several times with the learners copying the

teacher. Then the movement is stopped a part of the way between the two sounds so that the wanted sound is produced.

Gearing (2004) explains bracketing as a 'scientific process in which a researcher suspends or holds in abeyance his or her presuppositions, biases, assumptions, theories, or previous experiences to see and describe the phenomenon.

7. How a teacher correct punctuation mistake of learners?

The teacher repeats the word correctly several times with ordinary stress and intonation until the learner self-corrects by copying the teacher.

- The teacher repeats the word correctly giving extra stress and length to the part where the learner made the mistake. The teacher compares the mistake and the correct form: "Not lice but rice."
- The teacher writes the word on the blackboard correctly and underlines the part where the learner made a mistake. The teacher also says the word correctly.
- The teacher just says "No" and lets the learner find the mistake without help. The teacher can make a certain signal, like hitting the desk softly, when a learner makes a pronunciation mistake. This technique is used when the learners can make the correct sounds but forget to do so while talking.

8. Difference between stress-timed and syllable-timed language?

It used to be thought that in a stress-timed language (like English) the stresses were equal distances apart even though the number of syllables between each stress was not the same. This would mean that some syllables would have to be said very quickly if there were several between two stresses, and some would be said slowly if there were few between two stresses. In syllable-timed languages, the syllables occur at regular intervals (as in Spanish and Indonesian). Research indicates that the spacing of stresses is by no means equal in stress-timed languages although there is a tendency towards regularity (Dauer, 1983). The main differences between stress-timed and syllable-timed languages lie in syllable structure (syllable length varies more in stress-timed languages than in syllable-timed languages), vowel reduction (stress-timed languages are more likely to use centralized vowels in unstressed syllables and vowels may be shortened or omitted), and lexical stress (stress-timed languages usually have word level stress).

9. How stress of a words can be taught?

Stress can be taught in the following ways. ☐

The teacher taps the stress pattern of a word, with a hard tap for the stressed syllables and soft for the others. The learners say the word.

- When the teacher provides a model she can make the stressed syllable longer than usual and the unstressed ones very short.
- When the learners say a word, they make a gesture to go with the stressed part of the word. This gesture can be a hand movement.
- The learners are given a list of words. The teacher reads them and the learners underline the stressed syllables.
- The learners are given a list of words and they put them in groups according to their stress pattern

10. Teaching sentence stress?

The place of stress in an English sentence depends on the relative importance of the different words in the sentence. Usually nouns, adjectives, certain pronouns, main verbs and adverbs are given strong stress (Jones, 1960). Learners can be given practice in looking at the meaning of sentences to decide where the strong stress should be (Halverson, 1967). One sentence can be spoken in many different ways to give different meanings (Jones, 1960; Robinett, 1965). George and Neo (1974) point out the close relationship between stress and information distribution in a sentence, with the stressed parts conveying the least predictable information.

11. How learners learn intonation?

- The learners can copy the teacher.
- The learners can make gestures to go with changes in intonation. The rise at the end of a Yes/No question can go with the speaker raising her eyebrows, or lifting a shoulder.
- The learners say the last word of a sentence by itself with the correct intonation, rising or falling. Then word by word they build up the sentence from the end to the beginning while keeping the correct intonation.
- The learners can be shown drawings of intonation patterns to help them understand what they should try to do.

Chapter 9

Module_26

1. negotiation?

The integration of listening and speaking emphasizes active listening with the listener negotiating and shaping the spoken message. Part of the skill of listening is learning how to take an active role in providing feedback to the speaker (Brown, 1986). This feedback may involve

pointing out problems with the comprehensibility of the message and specifying where the problem lies. This feedback and questioning is called negotiation.

2. Negotiation in long's discussion of interaction?

Long's detailed discussion of interaction (Long, 1996: 445–454).

Negotiation:

- makes input understandable without simplifying it, so that learnable language features are retained
- breaks the input into smaller digestible pieces
- raises awareness of formal features of the input
- gives learners opportunities for direct learning of new forms
- provides a “scaffold” within which learners can produce increasingly complex utterances
- pushes learners to express themselves more clearly and precisely— “pushed output”
- makes learners more sensitive to their need to be comprehensible

3. Training of speaking strategies in the development of speaking skills?

Direct training of speaking strategies can have a positive effect on learners' development of speaking skills (Sayer, 2005). Training can involve:

- (1) explanation of discourse strategies like “holding the floor”, negotiating meaning, providing feedback to the speaker, and managing turn-taking;
- (2) observing conversations using a checklist and later providing feedback;
- (3) learners transcribing recordings of their own speech and critiquing them

4. Agony column activity?

e agony column activity as an example. In some newspapers there is a place for letters from readers to be printed. Readers write in describing their relationship problems or other personal problems and an answer giving advice about their problems is printed next to each letter. These letters and their answers can be used for class discussion. Hall (1971) suggests these steps.

- Read the letter to the learners, but not the answer. Unknown vocabulary and other difficulties should be explained. The learners can take notes as they listen to the letter, ask questions, repeat it aloud phrase by phrase, or write it as dictation.
- After the letter is read, the learners discuss it in small groups and suggest advice of their own.

- The last step is when the teacher presents the advice given in the newspaper. This advice can be discussed and compared with the advice suggested by the learners.

5. Techniques that encourage negotiation?

These include completion activities

- ✓ ordering activities
- ✓ split information activities
- ✓ Ranking
- ✓ problem solving
- ✓ modify the statements.

6. Telegraphic language?

strongly focused two-way tasks can result in the use of almost telegraphic language because this is the most efficient way of getting the message across, particularly when there is a time limit placed on the task. Similarly, the way in which the learners take turns in a task is largely determined by the nature of the task. Teachers need to monitor tasks well and use this feedback to redesign tasks to suit learning goals.

7. The ways in which information distribute among the learners?

These four ways are:

- All learners have the same information (a cooperating arrangement).
- Each learner has different essential information (a split information arrangement).
- One learner has all the information that the others need (a superior inferior arrangement).
- The learners all see the same information but each one has a different task.

8. Split information tasks?

Split information tasks can be used with learners at any level, from beginners to advanced students, if appropriate materials are employed (Nation, 1977). One weakness of these tasks when they require labelling and completion of diagrams with words is that learners can resort to spelling out words to each other and in so doing reduce the quality of meaning-focused talk. Cooperating tasks involve all the learners having the same information. For example, in a ranking task, the learners are given a list of items and a criterion for ranking or choosing amongst the items. They must arrange the items according to the criterion or choose the top 3 and the bottom 1.

9. strip story activity to encourage negotiation?

In the strip story the teacher chooses a story that has roughly as many sentences as there are learners in the group. The teacher writes each sentence from the story on different pieces of paper. The

story should be one that the learners have not met before. It should contain known vocabulary and sentence patterns. Each learner is given a different sentence from the story to memorize. If there are not enough sentences for each learner to have one it does not matter, because they can still participate in ordering the sentences. If there are more sentences than learners, then some learners can have two short sentences to memorize. So, each learner sees only one sentence and does not see the other sentences in the story. After each learner has memorized their sentence, the pieces of paper with the sentences on them are collected by the teacher. Then each learner tells their sentence to the others in the group and without doing any writing at all the learners arrange themselves to solve the problem of putting the sentences in the right order to tell the story (Gibson, 1975). The teacher takes no part in the activity. The technique allows the learners to communicate in the foreign language with each other to solve the problem. The solving of the problem is less important than the communication that needs to take place in order to solve the problem.

10. Factors that affect the amount and type of negotiation?

- ◆ Pair work usually produces more negotiations on the same task than work in a group of four.
- ◆ Cooperating tasks produce more negotiation of the meaning of vocabulary than information gap tasks (Newton, 1995). Information gap tasks produce a lot of negotiation but not all of it is negotiation of word meaning or indeed language features.
- ◆ The signals learners make affects the adjustment of output during a task. In a study of output in activities involving native speakers working with non-native speakers, Pica, Halliday, Lewis and Morgenthaler (1989) found that the most important factor determining whether learners adjusted their output was the type of signal made by their partner. When their partner asked for clarification, the learners were more likely to adjust what they said, than if their partner asked for confirmation by repeating what the learner had just said, by changing it, or by completing or elaborating it. The researchers caution, however, that confirmation checks that do not lead to adjusted output may still have an important role to play in language acquisition in that they provide models for input.

Module-27

1. procedure for learner's awareness about linguistic & socio-linguistic features of interactive spoken language?

- Stage 1 involves preparing for an interview and then carrying out the interview. The preparation can involve focusing on appropriate ways of addressing the interviewee, different ways of requesting an interview, and so on. It can also involve ways of managing the discourse by asking the interviewee to repeat or slow down.
- □ Stage 2 involves transcribing the recorded interview and coming to an understanding of what happened during the interview.
- Stage 3 involves presenting the analyzed transcription to the class in the form of a seminar presentation with accompanying discussion. Lynch (2001) found plenty of evidence that transcribing their own spoken interaction resulted in learners finding plenty to improve and being able to make substantial corrections to the language of the transcription. There was also a useful follow-up role for the teacher in providing helpful corrective feedback especially in vocabulary choice. The teacher's feedback on learners' written transcription of a taped rehearsal of a presentation had substantial positive effects on the grammatical accuracy of a subsequent presentation.

2. Listen & do activity?

Listen and do activities can also give rise to negotiation if they are at the right level of difficulty. Picture drawing in pairs has often been used in research on interaction and negotiation. Sometimes communication is difficult because the speaker is going too fast or is not being considerate of the listener. If this happens, the learner can try to control the speaker. The language needed to do this consists of phrases like "Please speak more slowly" and "Could you say that again?"

3. Controlling the teacher techniques?

In the controlling the teacher technique learners gain control of the listening material. When the learners have this control, listening exercises can become learning exercises. The teacher makes sure that the learners know the following sentences and, if necessary, writes them on the blackboard so that they can be seen during the exercise.

4. Ways of monitoring negotiation?

Group work can have a variety of learning goals and monitoring should reflect these goals. If the goal is the learning of language items, then the amount of support that learners provide each other during the activity will be of major interest.

- ✧ Parts of group work sessions are recorded and used as case studies to show learners how to increase support.
- ✧ Each learner in the group is assigned a different role to play during a group work activity. Thus, one person could have the role of encouraging each person to contribute to the discussion. Another person could have the role of commenting positively on good ideas put forward by others, and so on. ☐
- ✧ The teacher should consider redesigning the activity to include an information gap, a series of well-defined steps for the learners to follow, or a different outcome such as ranking, completion, or distinguishing. ☐
- ✧ It may be necessary to rearrange the assignment of learners to groups so that, for example, learners of a similar proficiency level are in the same group, or so that there is not a gender mix.

5. Learning through non-negotiated interaction?

In this procedure the teacher may simply rely on group cooperation to produce the wanted vocabulary and constructions. If monitoring the activity shows that this does not happen, then it may be necessary for the teacher to write words and phrases on the pictures for the learners to use. This gives the first activity something of a focus on form, and so the follow-up activities of turning it into a dialogue and then acting it may serve to bring back the meaning focus. All these kinds of support allow learners to draw on explicit knowledge of the language in their spoken production.

Chapter 10

Module-28

1. comprehension process?

Comprehension processes involve semantic decoding. Production also involves syntactic processing. Biber's (1989) research on the various clusters of syntactic items in different text types suggests that learners might be made aware of gaps in their productive knowledge of language features if they are required to speak in unfamiliar genres. The aim of setting demanding tasks is to encourage learners to extend their use of grammatical features and words. There are other ways of making tasks demanding, including getting learners to talk on unfamiliar topics, speaking where high standards of performance are expected, speaking without the

opportunity for planning or preparation, and speaking in formal situations without the interactive support of others.

2. Factors for pushing output?

When planning for a variety of speaking tasks to push learners' output there are several factors to consider. These include ☐

- covering a range of topics ☐
- a range of text types ☐
- a range of performance conditions

3. Topic?

Learners should be pushed to speak on a range of topics. Van Ek and Alexander (1980) provide a categorization of topics. West (1960: 113–134), in his classification of the Minimum Adequate Vocabulary, also provides a range of possible topic areas. Topic is most likely to have an effect on the vocabulary that is used as each topic is likely to have its particular technical, topic-related vocabulary. Covering a good range of topics in a course ensures that a wide range of vocabulary is used. Topic will also have a relationship with amount of background knowledge, as learners may be familiar with the content of some topics and not with others. There could be strong gender difference effects in relation to background knowledge of topics which can make some topics much more demanding than others for male and female learners.

4. Distinctions of text type?

- ✓ Involved interaction versus monologue. ☐
- ✓ Colloquial speech versus formal speech. ☐
- ✓ Short turns versus long turns.
- ✓ Interactional versus transactional speech. ☐
- ✓ Narrative versus non-narrative.

5. Performance conditions? (prepare details for your better understanding)

- ❖ Planning
- ❖ Time Pressure
- ❖ Amount of Support
- ❖ Standard of Performance

6. Q→SA+ei technique?

A very useful technique for doing that is called Q→SA+EI. What this formula means is a question (Q) should be followed by a short answer (SA) and then some extra information about the answer (EI). So if someone asks "How long have you been here?" the reply may be "About six months, but I found it very difficult at first". This extra information then provides an opportunity for the person asking the question to continue the conversation, typically by taking up the



point raised in the extra information, “What were the difficulties you had?” This very useful strategy deserves quite a lot of practice in class, particularly in guiding learners in the kinds of extra information that they can provide. It is also a good way for the person being questioned to take control of an interview or conversation by using the extra information to guide the direction of the conversation.

7. Formal & informal speaking difference?

formal speaking involves sophisticated language, a serious tone, structured presentation, and adherence to etiquette. Informal speaking uses everyday language, a casual tone, lacks strict structure, and allows for personal expression and gestures. Examples of formal settings include business presentations and academic lectures, while informal settings include casual conversations and interactions with friends.

Module-29

1. nature of formal speaking?

- ❖ It is transactional. Its purpose is to communicate information rather than to maintain social contact as is the case with most interactional speaking.
- ❖ ☐ It involves taking a long turn. That is, it is not usually presented as a dialogue but requires speaking for several minutes in a comprehensible and organized way. ☐
- ❖ It is influenced by written language. Often it will involve speaking from notes and will involve academic vocabulary. ☐
- ❖ The speaking is done in the learner’s “careful” style in a clear and deliberate way with opportunity for the speaker to monitor the production. ☐
- ❖ It often needs teaching as it is a skill that is not a part of typical language use.

2. Ways of teaching formal speaking?

- The speaker can look at the ideas that will be presented and find an effective way of organizing them. This will usually require a very good knowledge of the content matter of the talk.
- The speaker can use a standard rhetorical framework for organizing the ideas.
- The speaker can use a standard information framework, such as topic type. Thus, when describing how to do something, the speaker describes the materials needed, the tools needed, the steps to go through with cautions and conditions mentioned at

some steps, and then the final result, as in the instruction topic type.

- Group planning activities can be very useful in providing help for a speaker.

3. Pyramid procedure?

This means that the learner works alone to prepare the notes for a talk. Then the learner presents the talk to one learner using the notes, and gets feedback from that learner about the talk. Then using a shorter form of the notes, the learner presents the talk to a small group of three or four learners. Finally, the talk is presented to the whole class using only brief note cards. The practice before the class presentation reduces the need for the notes.

4. Moderation?

Moderation is an interesting way of doing this. The teacher writes a topic for discussion on a large sheet of paper. The learners write their ideas about the topic on small pieces of paper. The teacher collects these and puts them in clusters on the large sheet. The learners discuss the ideas to clarify them. If a person disagrees with an idea that person says "Objection!" and that objection is written on a different colored piece of paper and placed next to the idea. Then the learners think of headings for each cluster. The headings are written on pieces of paper and are added to the large sheet. The next step is for the learners to work on the relative importance of the clusters of ideas. Each learner is given two or three stickers to put on the headings they think are most important. Instead of clusters, a scale or a matrix can be used (Purvis, 1983). This information is then used as the basis for planning a talk.

5. Brainstorming?

Brainstorming is an effective way of doing this. In this activity learners suggest ideas which are listed uncritically, the main goal being to get as many ideas as possible. Later the ideas are organized and evaluated. An advantage of brainstorming is that it can result in a very diverse collection of ideas. A much more focused way of gathering ideas involves using information schema or self-questioning scales to gather information systematically. Organizing ideas clearly relates closely to awareness of the audience and the getting of ideas and in preparing a talk there could be continual movement between these parts of the process.

6. Guidelines for formal talks?

- ✓ The message should be limited to three or four important pieces of information.

- ✓ The speaker should present or gradually build up a simple outline of the main points of the talk.
- ✓ There should be three or four changes of the focus of attention during the talk. This means that the whole talk should not consist of the speaker talking to the audience.
- ✓ The audience should be involved in the talk by having a chance to participate through asking questions, providing feedback, and responding to tasks. There are three reasons for this. First, it keeps the attention of the audience. Second, it provides feedback for the speaker about whether the learners are following the talk, where they have difficulty, and what any are interested in. Third, it improves the quality of the information, particularly if some of the audiences are already well informed on the topic.

7. Process of monitoring formal tasks?

The process division of the formal speaking task provides a useful basis for monitoring and providing helpful formative feedback. When listening to formal talks both teachers and learners can look analytically to see where the strengths and weaknesses of the speaker lie. Learners should be encouraged to reflect on their own formal speaking, noting what they do well, and where they need to make improvement. Another kind of long turn is conversational story-telling (Jones, 2001) where, during a conversation, someone tells of an incident that happened to them. Hill and Storey (2003) describe the use of an on-line website to improve oral presentation skills. Formal speaking pushes learners in their output. It is worth remembering, however, that formal monologue is typically only a small part of most people's speaking. Speaking with others, as we have seen, can push learners in their output and make them notice gaps in their knowledge.

Chapter 11

Module-30

1. effects of language-focused learning?

- A combination of language-focused learning and meaning-focused use leads to better results than either kind of learning alone.
- Language-focused learning can speed up the rate of second language acquisition. ☐

- Language-focused learning may help learners to continue to improve their control of grammar rather than becoming stuck with certain errors. ?
- Some language-focused learning can lead directly to acquisition, depending on the kinds of items focused on, especially vocabulary (Elgort, 2007). ?
- Language-focused learning can indirectly provide meaning-focused

2. Limitations of language-focused learning?

- Language-focused learning cannot change the order in which learners acquire certain complex, developmental features of the language, such as questions, negatives, and relative clauses. ?
- Language-focused learning needs to be combined with the opportunity to use the same items in meaning-focused use. ?
- Some grammatical items learned through language-focused learning may only be available to the learner in planned use.

3. Vocabulary instruction?

Vocabulary instruction should involve thoughtful processing so that the words are remembered. Teachers should evaluate the procedures they use and the procedures their learners use to see their effectiveness. One way of doing this is to look at them from a “levels of processing” viewpoint to see how thoughtful the learners have to be when they use a particular procedure. Evaluating a procedure from this point of view can involve asking questions. Vocabulary instruction should avoid grouping words that will interfere with each other. Research on the form and meaning relationships between words shows that near synonyms, opposites, free associates, and members of a lexical set such as names of fruit or items of clothing interfere with each other and make learning more difficult if they are learned together.

4. How beginners learn vocabulary?

p. For adult beginners, it is useful to have a rapid expansion of vocabulary through direct vocabulary learning. An effective way of doing this for older learners is to make use of vocabulary cards. These are small cards (about 4cm × 3cm) with the second language word on one side and the first language translation on the other. Particularly at the beginning level, it is useful to have a phrase containing the new word along with the word. Learners use these cards in their own time, looking at them frequently for a short time. It is good to change the order of the cards as they are looked at to avoid a serial effect in learning. The use of such cards should be combined with mnemonic techniques such as the keyword technique, or word

part analysis, or simply creating a mental picture of the word or a situation where it is used. The considerable amount of research on this rote learning procedure clearly shows its effectiveness.

5. Steps to learn vocabulary for intermediate?

- Look at the second language word and think of a first language word that sounds like it or sounds like its beginning. This first language word is the keyword. ☐
- Think of the meaning of the second language word and the meaning of the first language word joined together in some way. This is where imagination is needed. ☐
- Make a mental picture of these two meanings joined together.

Module-31

1. grammar focused description?

This kind of language-focused learning results in learners being able to say what a grammatical feature means, how it is put together, or how it should be used. As the following techniques show, the instruction is teacher produced description of rules or patterns, learner analysis of examples, or learner manipulation and joining of parts. Direct explanation of grammar points has certain advantages over more communicatively based problem-solving activities (Sheen, 1992). First, the direct teaching gets the point across quickly and allows more time for practice and meaning-focused use. Second, problem-solving group work which focuses on grammar may require vocabulary and constructions that the learners do not know.

2. Explicit grammatical rules?

Sharwood Smith (1981) makes the point that there is a range of knowledge that learners may have. He uses the dimensions of overtness and elaboration to describe these. There are clearly other factors as well, such as generality of application, and kinds of information (rules, strategies, probabilities). There are several exercise types that could fit this category. They include transformation, ordering, constructing from rules, and classification.

3. Which aspects involves in consciousness raising activities?

Consciousness-raising activities can involve the following:

- having to underline or note examples of an item in a text
- being given examples and having to construct a rule
- having to classify examples into categories such as countable/uncountable or active/passive
- performing rule based error correction
- using a rule to construct a sentence

- recognizing instances of a rule in operation

4. Garden-path techniques?

Tomasello and Herron (1989) suggest that some activities should be designed so that learners make errors and then get immediate feedback to make them aware of the gaps in their knowledge. Their deliberate encouragement of errors through incorrect analogy is called the “garden path” technique. The expression “to lead someone down the garden path” means to deliberately trick someone. It is important to note that it is not the error which is important in the garden path technique, but the noticing which comes from it.

5. Major factors that decided about error?

There are two major factors to consider when deciding what to do about errors. The first is the cause of the error and the second is the effect of correction. Error correction as a means of consciousness-raising has several advantages. First, it can be a striking way of noticing, particularly if the error interfered with communication of a message. Second, it pushes the learner to notice a gap, exemplified by the difference between the error and the correction. Third, it assists the learning of accurate explicit rules that can be used to produce output that may become input for implicit knowledge.

6. Correction of grammatical errors?

Correcting errors is best done if there is some understanding of why the error occurred. This involves error analysis. Error analysis is the study of errors to see what processes gave rise to them. Many errors have more than one cause. For example, interference from the first language is encouraged if the learner has to perform beyond their normal level of competence. Then the first language becomes the main resource to fall back on. Errors resulting from the over-use of second language patterns are more likely to occur where the first language patterns provide little support. From a teaching point of view it is thus useful to regard errors as at least partly a result of the conditions under which speaking occurred.

7. Johnson suggestions In order to get rid of mistakes?

Johnson (1988) suggests that learners need the following four things in order to get rid of a mistake.

- The desire or need to get rid of the mistake.
- An internal representation of what the correct form is like.
- The ability to know that a mistake has been made.
- An opportunity to practice the correct form in real conditions.

8. Correction procedures?

The teacher interrupts and corrects the error, thus providing immediate feedback.

- The teacher says “What?” each time the error occurs, as if the error made understanding difficult.
- The teacher repeats correct forms as if confirming what the learner said. This type of correction is supposed to be like the type of modelling that is done with young native speakers.
- The teacher makes a written note about the error which is later given to the learners. This type of correction does not interrupt the speaking and may encourage future monitoring.
- The teacher gives some lesson time to pointing out errors that the learners have made, explains how to correct them, and encourages them to monitor for these errors in future speaking activities
- The learners practice using correct forms in their “careful” style of speaking.

Chapter 12

Module _ 32

1. Characteristics of fluency?

- Fluent language use involves “the processing of language in real time” (Schmidt, 1992: 358). That is, learners demonstrate fluency when they take part in meaning-focused activity and do it with speed and ease without holding up the flow of talk. There are observable signs that can be used to measure changes in fluency. These include speech rate (as measured in words or syllables per minute) and b), number of filled pauses such as um, ah, er, and number of unfilled pauses. ☐
- Fluent language use does not require a great deal of attention and effort from the learner. ☐
- If we consider the four goals of Language, Ideas, Skill, Text (LIST), fluency is a skill. Although it depends on quality of knowledge of the language, and its development involves the addition to and restructuring of knowledge, in essence it involves making the best possible use of what is already known

2. Main characteristics of activities designed to develop fluency?

message-focused activity ☐

easy tasks ☐

performance at a high level

3. Fluency activities?

Fluency activities depend on several design requirements and features to achieve their goal. These can appear in a variety of techniques over the whole range of language skills. By looking at these requirements and features we can judge whether an activity will develop fluency in an efficient way and we can devise other activities that will. Let us look first at a well-researched activity. The 4/3/2 technique was devised by Maurice (1983). In this technique, learners work in pairs with one acting as the speaker and the other as listener. The speaker talks for four minutes on a topic while their partner listens. Then the pairs change with each speaker giving the same information to a new partner in three minutes, followed by a further change and a two-minute talk.

4. Suggestions of things to do before the fluency activity begins?

brainstorming the topic ☐

pre-reading on the topic ☐

observation of others doing the activity

☐ repeated opportunities to do the activity ☐

preparing and practicing in the first language

☐ prediction activities

5. Repetition?

Repetition of an activity is a sure way of developing fluency with the particular items and sequences used in the activity. It is necessary to change the audience when designing repetition into meaning-focused speaking activities so that the speaker does not change the spoken message to try to retain the interest of an audience that has already heard the message. The success of repetition activities largely depends on the repetitions involving substantially the same message. In the 4/3/2 activity, the work is done in pairs and the listener in each pair is replaced by a different listener for each repetition.

Module _ 33

1. Approaches on repetition?

- ✧ The first approach relies primarily on repetition and could be called “the well-beaten path approach” to fluency. This involves gaining repeated practice on the same material so that it can be performed fluently.
- ✧ The second approach to fluency relies on making many connections and associations with a known item. Rather than following one well-beaten path, the learner can choose from

many paths. This could be called “the richness approach” to fluency. This involves using the known item in a wide variety of contexts and situations.

- ✧ The third approach to fluency is the aim and result of the previous two approaches. This could be called “the well-ordered system approach”. Fluency occurs because the learner is in control of the system of the language and can use a variety of efficient, well-connected, and well-practiced paths to the wanted item.

2. Conditions that necessary for the development of fluency?

- The techniques involve meaning-focused activity. They involve listening to interesting stories, puzzle and quiz activities, and activities with clear communication outcomes. ☐
- They place very limited demands on the learners in that they rely heavily on language items, topics and experiences with which the learners are already familiar. This familiarity may come from having met or produced the material themselves in a different medium, or through drawing on knowledge gained through the first language. The demands of the task may also be limited through the use of controlled input and through the use of supporting material, such as the use of pictures and written texts to support the listening input. ☐
- The techniques encourage learners to reach a high level of performance through the use of meaning-focused repetition, increasing speed of input, and the opportunity for prediction and the use of previous background knowledge.

3. Difference b/w top-down & bottom-up processing?

Top-down processing is encouraged by getting learners to listen when the topic is very familiar to them, when the organization and other genre conventions are familiar to them, when their attention is strongly focused on the message, and when there is not a concern for linguistic detail.

Bottom-up processing occurs when the main source of information is the text itself and the listener cannot draw on preparation and previous experience to assist in comprehension. Topdown and bottom-up processing tasks usually have different learning goals and set up conditions for different kinds of learning

4. Blown - up processing?

Blown-up books are a useful way of using listening to introduce learners to reading and getting them excited about reading. These very large books have pages which are about eight times the size of ordinary pages and they contain plenty of pictures. As they are so

large they can be shown to the whole class while the teacher reads them aloud and all the learners can see the words and pictures. These books can be bought or they can be made by using a photocopier that enlarges what it copies.

5. Activities for listening?

A **listening corner** is a place where the learners can listen to tapes as part of self-access activities. The teacher makes a tape of a spoken version of writing that the learners have already done.

The listening to pictures technique is a way of providing quantity of input. Because of the support that the pictures provide and because of the opportunities for repetition using the same picture, this is also a useful fluency technique.

Listening to stories is particularly suitable for learners who read well but whose listening skills are poor. The teacher chooses an interesting story, possibly a graded reader, and reads aloud a chapter each day to the learners. The learners just listen to the story and enjoy it. While reading the story the teacher sits next to the blackboard and writes any words that the learners might not recognize in their spoken form. Any words the learners have not met before may also be written, but the story should be chosen so that there are very few of these.

In **listen again** the teacher retells a story that the learners have already heard before, but uses different words from the previous telling.

In a **visit and listen activity**, the teacher and the learners visit a place outside the school such as a zoo, a factory, a special school, or a fire station.

In a **visit and listen activity**, the teacher and the learners visit a place outside the school such as a zoo, a factory, a special school, or a fire station.

6. 4/3/2 technique?

The 4/3/2 technique was devised by Maurice (1983). In this technique, learners work in pairs with one acting as the speaker and the other as listener. The speaker talks for four minutes on a topic while their partner listens. Then the pairs change with each speaker giving the same information to a new partner in three minutes, followed by a further change and a two-minute talk. It combines the features of focus on the message, quantity of production (the speakers speak for a total of nine minutes), learner control over the topic and language used, repetition, and time pressure to reach a high

rate of production through the decreasing amount of time available for each delivery.

7. Ask & answer activity?

The ask and answer technique (Simcock, 1993) is a follow-up to reading. The learners read a text to a high level of comprehension and then they work in pairs with one learner questioning the other about the text from a list of teacher-prepared questions. The answers to these questions provide a summary of the ideas in the text. The goal of the activity is for learners to perform the asking and answering in front of the class at a high level of fluency, so each pair practices asking and answering several times before doing their class presentation.

8. Lennon's foundation about measures of fluency activities?

Lennon (1990) found that over a period of several months, the measures that showed a change were speech rate and filled pauses. It would be necessary to make careful transcripts of recorded spoken production to measure such change, but teachers may be able to make more subjective judgements that are of value. Fluency is often a neglected strand of a course, probably because the teacher feels that new material needs to appear in each lesson. Fluency development activities are a very useful bridge between knowing and using.

Chapter 13

Module _ 34

1. Speech & language development in early years?

The first three years of life are recognized as the most intensive period for acquiring speech and language skills.

Language and speech development are different.

Speech is talking.

Most children develop receptive language skills before expressive language skills.

Most children and babies follow recognizable stages in their language development by relatively predictable stages.

The average four-year-old will reportedly have a receptive vocabulary of 8,000 words and an expressive vocabulary of 2,300 words.

Language skills are known to develop more readily in environments with lots of sound, sights and consistent exposure to speech and language of others.

Attention and listening skills are essential for children to be able to recognize sounds and words, learn what they mean and how to use them.

A child may have difficulty keeping their attention some of the time or all of the time. Some problems can be easily rectified.

Nursery rhymes encourage listening skills.

2. Oral language development?

Infants listen to and become aware of sounds of the words being spoken by the adults around them. Very early on children begin to communicate their own needs through sounds and gestures. ☐

Toddlers use language to express feelings and ideas and seek information. They begin to talk in simple sentences, ask questions and give opinions about likes and dislikes. ☐

Young Preschoolers build a larger vocabulary from the language of people around them and from new ideas in books. They tell make-believe stories and talk about things and events that are not in the here-and-now, such as things they cannot see, events that have already happened or might happen in the future. They use language that is more complex, with complete sentences and sentences with multiple parts.

3. Turn taking?

The richest talk involves many “back-and-forth” turns in which the provider builds on and connects with the child’s statements, questions and responses. These extended conversations help children learn how to use language and understand the meaning of new words they encounter listening to other people or in reading books. They also often involve different kinds of sentences—questions and statements—and may include adjectives and adverbs that modify the words in children’s original statements, modeling richer descriptive language.

4. One-one-one talking ?

Talking one-on-one gives the provider a chance to repeat (say back), extend (add to), and revise (recast or restate) what children say. Children have a chance to hear their own ideas reflected back. In addition, one-on-one conversations provide opportunities to either contextualize the conversation according to the individual child’s understanding or tap children’s understanding of abstract concepts.

Caregivers should try to hold individual conversations with children each day

Module_35

1. NLS?

The National Literacy Strategy (NLS) (DfEE 1998c) encouraged the use of spoken language in whole-class and group work but did not specify the direct teaching of speaking and listening as a discrete subject. The QCA guidance materials Speaking, Listening, Learning (QCA/DfES 2003) addressed this omission by providing a framework to support the development of the skills and understanding children need to become articulate. The approach depends on the fostering of children's progress through activities with specified learning objectives for speaking, listening, group work and drama.

2. Dialogic teaching?

Dialogic teaching is based on the premise that learning in schools is a social activity. Social aspects of classroom contexts which teachers can organize to help ensure the effectiveness of learning activities are:

- ☐ the fostering of a classroom community in which learning dialogues take place; ☐
- ☐ the creation of activities which necessitate learning dialogues.

3. Four important worries about guided reading raised by teachers?

- ✓ ☐ It may be very difficult to work intensively with a small group for a reasonable length of time.
- ✓ ☐ Some children want to read at their own pace and seem averse to sharing books through discussion.
- ✓ Children rarely raise questions themselves, but are very passive and expect the teacher to do all the 'work' of the conversation.
- ✓ Teachers question their own role in group discussion, feeling that their intervention is somehow 'wrong' in being too directive.

Module_36

1. Types of talk at the computer?

Disputational talk
Cumulative talk
Exploratory talk

2. Inter thinking?

It is useful to reflect on the effect that working with a partner can have on the child as an individual by considering your own experience of talk about work. Talking with a partner is an opportunity to put half-formed ideas into words. Having to say what you mean – thinking aloud – is a way of making your thoughts clear to yourself; and having to explain and describe things to a partner is a way of developing a shared understanding of ideas. If your partner is prepared to accept your initial suggestion, without you having to justify or defend it, you have no stimulus to engage critically with your own thoughts.

Exploratory talk?

Exploratory talk is difficult enough for adults to achieve and it cannot be assumed that it will come naturally to children. Some children in primary classrooms may be familiar with exploratory talk from their prior experience in and out of school. They may be capable of using such experience as a model for their talk with their peers. Other children who have relatively little experience or awareness of exploratory talk may be completely unfamiliar with using rational discussion as a means of resolving conflicting views or negotiating a joint solution to a problem.

4. Ground rules for exploratory talk?

- ✓ everyone in the group is encouraged to contribute
- ✓ contributions are treated with respect
- ✓ reasons are asked for
- ✓ everyone is prepared to accept challenges
- ✓ alternatives are discussed before a decision is taken
- ✓ all relevant information is shared
- ✓ the group seeks to reach agreement.

5. Thinking together approach?

The 'Thinking Together' approach (Dawes et al. 2000) takes this set of ground rules as the basis for learning objectives for a set of 'Talk Lessons'. One special aspect of these lessons is that at the start of each lesson, the learning objectives for speaking and listening are made explicit to the children. Children are grouped in threes, usually mixed ability and gender. The Talk Lessons initially raise awareness of the importance of classroom talk. Subsequently the groups undertake activities designed to encourage group cohesion and trust.

Module_ 37

1. National curriculum programme of study include?

The National Curriculum Programmes of Study and level descriptions for Speaking and Listening are rather generalized. There is a need to develop a range of strategies for listening to children talking, taking into account a number of features which might not relate to their oral ability. These will include: ?

who the child is speaking to ?

what sort of task is involved ?

previous experience of the talk task ?

the child's fluency in a home language as well as English ?

the gender of the child and other group members

2. Difficulties about the assessment of classroom talk by Alan Howe?

Alan Howe (1997: 61) wrote of the difficulties and constraints that beset the assessment of classroom talk: ?

- the pressure of numbers ?
- the ephemerality of the medium ?
- the power that context has over the behavior, confidence and language use of the participants ?
- the way in which such behavior can further alter the context.

3. Self - assessment?

Involving children in the assessment of their own speaking and listening helps them to develop a way of describing their own talk and become aware of the way they interact with other people. It also helps them to take an active part in their own learning as we saw in Chapter 6, where children became aware of themselves as talkers as they learned to work together round the computer

4. Purposes of comprehensive talk diary?

- ❖ provide an overview of the range of opportunities for speaking and listening which the child has experienced
- ❖ ? record the child's strengths and weaknesses in speaking and listening ?
- ❖ build up a picture over time of speaking and listening activities ?
- ❖ focus the child's attention on the value of speaking and listening ?
- ❖ provide evidence for informal ongoing assessment ?
- ❖ contribute to planning of activities

Chapter 14

Module_ 38

1. Trace of audio- lingual and national- functional approach?

During the 1970s and into the 1980s a focus on structured practice and de-contextualized tasks was the norm in materials produced to develop speaking skills. In these the long shadow of what had been a dominant paradigm in language teaching, the audio-lingual method, could still be seen. Whereas in the research domain at this time communicative approaches were emerging, and the earlier approach had been largely set aside from the early 1960s, commercial materials still showed features of the older approach. Very few exercises to generate 'free' talk or allow students to negotiate meaning between themselves were evident and pattern practice would take place through a highly structured and constrained set of exercises. In addition, as was the norm in the audio-lingual approach, there would be very little description at the meta-level, that is to say, there would be little or no attempt to explain point of language and the focus was to gain automaticity by filling in gaps and repeating patterns. In some materials however the influence of 'functional' approaches to language teaching– those in which a brief context/scenario and a conversational purpose/ function were related to particular forms which speakers might be expected to produce – also made their way into materials produced for teaching speaking.

2. Influence of discourse analytic approach?

many of the pair-work books which grew out of the drive for communicative materials in the ELT classroom during the 1980s and early 1990s focused less on structural input, and more on scenarios to prompt 'natural' dialogue. Through such interactions the learner would be encouraged to build fluency and from which, in theory, insight about structure would be acquired. For example, Partners 3 by Michael Lewis (1982) contains a range of ingenious scenarios and prompts for the more advanced learner. However, it is not that far removed from the earlier materials. In particular, it asks the student to carry out their interactions in something of a void or as if the scenarios being presented were culturally universal or neutral.

3. IELTS?

IELTS, or the International English Language Testing System, is a standardized test assessing the English language proficiency of non-native speakers. It evaluates skills in listening, reading, writing, and speaking. IELTS scores, reported on a nine-band scale, are widely

accepted for academic admissions, professional certification, employment, and immigration purposes in English-speaking countries. The test has Academic and General Training versions, with the former for academic institutions and the latter for immigration and general professional purposes.

Module _39

1. Test formats?

The examiner and candidate participating in oral discourse under test conditions are in an atypical relationship in terms of everyday speaking, in several ways. A key skill in spoken language production involves understanding listener needs and adapting speech in the light of this. For instance, speakers using the same geographical dialect and from a similar social background will use distinctive forms and lexical items with people they feel close to in terms of social identity. The same speakers may, in different circumstances, monitor and adjust their way of speaking if, for example, they are speaking to someone of their own generation but from a different location or language background. They may adjust their talk again if they speak to someone much older than themselves who speaks their local dialect.

2. Genres & skills?

A further issue in oral assessment relates to the question of what speech genres, if any, are being tested, and of 'field-specific' or specific purpose tests versus general tests. In the case of speech genres, there is some evidence from the field of corpus linguistics to suggest that the language choices made by speakers are strongly influenced by the genre of talk in which they are engaged. For example, the densely informative (and therefore noun-phrase packed) monologue of a seminar presentation versus the less densely structured conversational content which takes place during 'language-in-action' or service encounters

3. Six tasks in TOEFL?

Six tasks in TOEFL are designed to test different aspects of speaking. Two ('independent') call on the candidate to express an opinion on a familiar topic and four others ('integrated') ask the candidate to speak in response to written or spoken material that provides input. The rubrics for the independent and integrated tasks are based on the same underlying facets although the detail of the criteria differs

slightly. Due to the nature of the test format, all responses are in recorded monologue. In essence, the difference between the independent and the integrated tasks relates to the source of the material, the topic being generated from students' own experience in the case of the independent tasks; and from external prompts and visual stimuli in the integrated tasks.

4. IELTS speaking test?

In contrast to the iBT TOEFL speaking test, the IELTS speaking test is conducted with a face-to-face interlocutor/examiner. It is a test with a stronger focus on holistic communicative skills than on the hierarchy of separate language facets underlying the TOEFL test. Each test lasts 10 to 15 minutes and is recorded. A three-stage interview takes place beginning with general and familiar topics for around 4 minutes. A card with a prompt is presented to the candidate in the second stage of the test and they are asked to prepare what they are going to say (around 1 minute) and then speak in monologue for 2 minutes about the given topic. A transition takes place to part 3 in which a dialogue at a more abstract level is developed between the examiner and the candidate out of the material in part 2.

In 2001, the revised version of the IELTS speaking test (described above) was launched on the basis of work begun around 1998.

5. KOL tests?

This took the form of a Knowledge of Language and Life in the UK test (KOL test) one function of which, as the name suggests, is to provide evidence of some competence in English language. Applicants need to show that they have reached Entry Level 3 in the UK National Qualifications Framework (equivalent to Common European Framework B1). One of the ways that applicants wishing to settle in Britain can show this level of competence is by taking and passing the KOL test. This test is a hybrid between an assessment of knowledge and of language. The KOL test consists of 24 multiple choice format questions based on general knowledge of British life and culture. Taking and passing it assumes language knowledge at Entry Level 3. Those who do not reach this level can continue to retake the KOL test until they pass, or can opt to take an 'ESOL with citizenship materials' qualification through an approved body.

Module _40

1. Suggestions for careful monitoring ?

- ❖ Where possible, get learners to keep a record of their performance on regular classroom activities.
- ❖ The teacher uses simple observation checklists when learners are performing listening and speaking activities.
- ❖ ☐ The teacher gets learners to do regular self-assessment of their progress as well as gathering evaluative feedback from them regarding the course.
- ❖ The teacher crosses items off a syllabus list when satisfied that the learners are able to cope with that part of the syllabus.
- ❖ The learners build up a sequenced portfolio of completed activities and feedback, where this is possible.
- ❖ The teacher does regular testing.

2. Reliability ?

A reliable test is one whose results are not greatly affected by a change in the conditions under which it is given and marked. For example, if a test is given on different days by different people it should still give the same results. If the same answer paper is marked by different people, the score should be the same. There are ways of checking statistically to see if a test is reliable. They all share similar features, but they look at different aspects of reliability.

3. Features of listening & speaking tests that effect reliability of learners?

- A listening test will be more reliable if the material that the learners listen to is on tape. The tape recording ensures that whenever the test is used, the speed of speaking and the accent will be the same. This assumes that the quality of the tape-recorder playing the tape and the room in which the tape is played provide consistent conditions.
- A test is more reliable if it has several points of assessment. This means, for example, that a listening test consisting of 50 separate multiple-choice or true-false items is likely to be more reliable than a test involving 12 questions based on a listening text.
- A test is more reliable if it can be marked in relation to a set of correct answers or if the marking is based on clearly understood criteria. Sometimes it is worth giving markers some training if several are involved. Marking a dictation or scoring a role play, for example, requires a good understanding of the marking criteria plus some marking practice and discussion.
- A test will be more reliable if the learners are all familiar with the format of the test. It is worth giving a little practice in answering a particular type of test before it is used for testing.

4. Validity and its types?

A test is valid if it measures what it is supposed to measure and when it is used for the purpose for which it is designed. This last part of the definition of validity is important because a test may be valid when it is used for a particular purpose but not valid when it is used for another purpose.

Types: face validity:

Face validity is a very informal judgement. It simply means that the people sitting the test, the people giving the test, and others affected by it such as parents, employers, and government officials see the test as fair and reliable.

Content validity involves considering whether the content of the test reflects the content of the skill, language, or course being tested. For example, in order to decide if a test of academic listening skill has content validity, we would need to decide what are the components of the academic listening skill and how is this skill used.

5. Which types involves in listening tests?

Dictation

Partial Dictation

Text with Questions

Responding to Statements

Three Choice True-false

Recorded Cloze

Information Transfer

6. Two main aspects of speaking tests?

The two main aspects of direct procedures for testing speaking are:

(1) the way in which the person being tested is encouraged to speak (this can include being interviewed, having to describe something for someone to draw, being involved in a discussion etc.)

(2) the way in which the speaker's performance is assessed (this can include rating scales, communicative result, and assigning marks for the parts of an outcome). Due to the practical problems in measuring the speaking proficiency of large groups of people, there has been a continuing interest in more practicable indirect group measures.

7. Which types involves in speaking tests?

Interviews and Scales

Group Oral Exam

Dycoms (Split Information)

Describe and Draw

Conversational Cloze

Multiple-choice Speaking Tests

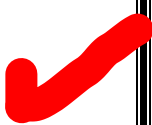
Imitation

difference

Role Plays

Chapter 15

Module _41



1. What is paradigm?

A paradigm is a framework for ideas which includes definitions of key terms and the relationships between them. The framework is coherent because the researcher assumes certain things as a starting point and new knowledge is absorbed into this mental 'map'. Different disciplines work within different paradigms and even within the same academic department several paradigms can compete with one another.

2. Empirical and non-empirical approach?

An empirical approach to a research project begins from situated questions and facts rather than decontextualized issues or questions of theory. Both kinds of approach can be used to deal with the same topic and the clearest differences between them lie in the methods used and what is regarded as a coherent approach and evidence. The less empirically motivated researcher in linguistics has traditionally been concerned with intuitions about language and the fit between new data and existing theory. The empirically oriented researcher will be more open to seeing patterns emerging from data and drawing conclusions from these that may challenge pre-existing ideas or intuitions. Both approaches will draw on theory and a pre-existing paradigm so the contrast is not so much between empirical and theoretical work but between the emphases placed on data in terms of conclusions reached.

3. Development of functional magnetic resonance?

The development of functional magnetic resonance imaging 'fMRI' technology linguistic research developed in the early years of this century has had an interesting effect on the study of spoken language. The capacity to link brain function to particular spoken stimuli has meant researchers can now build hypotheses to investigate questions about links between oral/aural input and events in the brain. The reason that this is a step change in the field is that earlier neurolinguistics work depended on making links between spoken events in the outside world and possible brain activity. This was often done by contrasting brain-damaged and non-braindamaged

speech performance. While this approach remains valid, the capacity to map and link spoken events and normal brain activity is an exciting new development for linguistics.

4. Analyzing speaking skills of discourse and social interaction level at 1990?

During the 1990s and beyond there was increasing interest in the telecommunications and computing world that discourse analysis would solve problems of automation of human– computer understanding. This area has not achieved the early promise – humans are still constrained to limited lexical choices and clear talk in these contexts rather than the system being able to adjust to spontaneous talk. Nevertheless, it will be interesting to see what twenty-first century discourse and conversation analysis can offer other disciplines and users wanting to apply the insights of linguistics to real-world applications.

5. Research space at the level of language choice?

A prominent strand of work on grammar and lexis that takes into account spoken mode has been developed through corpus studies. Douglas Biber's work gives a strongly data-oriented analysis of a wide variety of spoken and written sources, concluding that certain grammatical features cluster together to make up the distinctive style of a spoken or written genre. These features in turn map on to dimensions of contrast, such as whether the language is concerned with conveying information or is more inter-personally oriented. Rather than suggesting a simple binary division between speech and writing, Biber suggested that there were patterns of probability among language features that show statistical regularity in how they co-occur in spoken and written genres. There have been two major strands of work developed from this approach: applications of the register analysis in discrete fields and genres, and more theoretical and detailed insights about general language features. Early corpus-based work helped to inform research into speech on detailed aspects such as tenses, vocabulary, clauses, and ellipsis. More recently, work has involved broader questions of the extent of generalizability and applicability of findings

Module_ 42

1. Difference b/w quantitative & qualitative approach?

Quantitative Approach:

Data: Numerical

Research Questions: Relationships, prevalence, effectiveness

Methods: Surveys, experiments

Analysis: Statistical techniques

Generalizability: Seeks Generalizability

Objective: Emphasizes objectivity

Qualitative Approach:

Data: Non-numerical (words, images)

Research Questions: Understanding, exploration, context

Methods: Interviews, focus groups, content analysis

Analysis: Thematic analysis, grounded theory

Generalizability: Focuses on in-depth understanding

Subjective: Acknowledges researcher's subjectivity

2. CA?

A widely used method among the qualitative approaches to researching speaking is conversation analysis (CA). This method puts high value on the careful analysis of examples of real (i.e. non-elicited) talk to understand how speakers create meaning and organize their discourse as social action. The CA analyst is interested also in what linguistic resources (syntax, prosody, gaze, laughter, silence, and so on) speakers use to 'do talk' and how these are different in specific varieties of language and discourse contexts. The 'pure' CA approach, therefore, is unique in that it seeks to understand the nature of speech primarily from observation of nonelicited data and through this process gain insights about broader patterns and meaningful regularities appearing in the interaction.

3. When theories of speech meet the real world ? explain it?

. Liberman (1998) 'When theories of speech meet the real world' is an example of what is known as a 'position paper'. This means that the research text in question (they are generally journal articles) encapsulates an academic's stance on a broad topic and they generally deal with an issue that is open to debate. These can be difficult to write as there is a need to understand the ideas being criticized summarize the relevant arguments and present a coherent alternative to them. Theoretical research questions very often begin life as 'what if ...?' thoughts, and in a 'position paper' these can, and are often intended to, present fundamental challenges to existing paradigms. It should be noted; however, that even the most robust theoretical thinkers are selective in what they present as 'given' and what is challenged.

4. Major trends to reshape the research landscape ?

Major trends appear to be emerging that have reshaped and will continue to reshape the research landscape. The first of these is the breaking down of some of the barriers between different 'camps' in the discipline, the acceptance of a less adversarial, more eclectic, approach to language theory and respect for inter-disciplinarity. A second major trend is that of the effect of the World Englishes (WE), and English as a lingua franca (ELF) movements. Finally, the consolidation of technological advances over a twenty-year period and the incorporation of entirely new technologies have had, and will continue to have, a major effect on our understanding of the spoken mode and how to research it.

Module_ 43

1. Spoken interaction?

there are several reasons for the special status of spoken interaction in applied linguistics and language pedagogy. These perspectives have a strong influence on what is regarded as good classroom practice whether the explicit name of the component in the syllabus is speaking or not. Spoken interaction is seen as an important, if not key, aspect of the language learning process and has been for over a hundred years. The spoken form is variously conceived of as:

- the primary mode in which 'natural uptake' can occur (as in 'The Natural Method' or 'The Oral Approach' prevalent in the early years of the last century until the early 1960s)

- a powerful tool for developing automatic and fluent output, together with consolidation of grammatical patterns (as in 'The Direct Method' or 'The Audio-lingual Approach')

- the ideal medium for the exploration of language and one that allows a focus on communication to take precedence over form

2. Natural method of language by Krashen?

Krashen's theory became the subject of heated debate concerning how to apply and how to verify it (for example, White, 1987), together with the growing sense in the field that L2 acquisition differs from L1 in a variety of ways (see for instance, Ellis, 1986). The significant impact that the ideas had means that Krashen's ideas are retained in the standard English language teacher training syllabus and the focus on interaction rather than explicit instruction that they promoted provides part of the explanation for the strong focus on speaking in language acquisition that remains to this day.

3. Role of spoken interaction in CLT?

The Communicative Language Teaching (CLT) approach that has dominated English language teaching from the 1980s if not earlier and the Natural Approach that retains a strong influence on teacher training were developed around the idea of meaningful interaction and the focus on communication rather than linguistic facts. Both therefore valued, and were interested in encouraging students to engage in, abundant amounts of spoken language in the classroom. CLT has itself become more refined and diverse over the years but the basic assumption that language is best approached as action and interaction rather than a set of rules has remained the bedrock of English language teacher training. An example of how classroom management of interaction is seen as influencing language acquisition is in the role of feedback and error correction by a teacher. In the Focus-on-Form movement, for instance, the handling of immediate feedback by drawing attention to an item just said by a student is part of the approach. It is felt to enhance the process of becoming more aware of a correct form and promote accurate spoken output by the student.

4. TBLT approach?

Task-Based Language Teaching (TBLT) movement. This approach is not without controversy – in particular the role of explicit versus implicit focus on linguistic items – but the ideas underlying it chimed particularly clearly with the prevailing ethos of CLT and have meant that the task-based approach remains a current topic for scholarly debate and classroom applications.

5. Three basic aspects of spontaneous speech?

- ❖ speaking is fundamentally an interactive process and is defined by interactivity
- ❖ speaking happens under real-time processing constraints
- ❖ speaking is more fundamentally linked to the individual who produces it than the written form is.

Module_ 44

1. Speaking and psycholinguistics?

Psycholinguistic studies focus on the relationship between brain, language and behavior. The tendency has been for links to be investigated between psychological processes and speech behavior at the level of planning and delivery rather than on wider psychological motivations to speech behavior, for example how idiolect is affected by emotional or experiential factors. Aspects of speech which the

psycholinguist would be interested in revolve around both practical topics such as the relationship between grammar, memory and language processing and, at the more theoretical end of the spectrum, the different levels or hierarchies involved in language production and comprehension, or the links between the brain and language acquisition.

2. Neuro- linguistics studies of speaking?

Neuro-linguistics differs from psycholinguistics in that the focus of research is on the biological and neurological basis of language processing. As such, research into fundamental aspects of speech can be investigated within neuro-linguistic frameworks. It is interesting to note how little either psycho- or neurolinguistics affects mainstream applied linguistics and language teaching, despite a long and reputable research tradition. There is, however, a strong link existing between this field and speech pathology/therapy.

3. Corpus linguistic and speaking?

There is also a strong relationship developing between particular publishing houses and the creation of different corpora. See for instance Collins and the Co build Corpus or Long man and the British National Corpus, or Cambridge University Press and the CANCODE (Cambridge and Nottingham Corpus of Discourse in English) project. Research into spoken corpora is throwing up many insights about the form, but from the perspective of a unified theory or approach to speech, work on corpus linguistics will always tend to isolate the samples of speech data from the original oral/aural channel in which they were produced, and also from the overall context of the discourse. The development of multi-media corpora that is starting to emerge may begin to address this issue and is one of the most promising avenues for a model of the spoken form that does justice to its rich and complex resources for communicating meaning.

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